Reproducing and Extending Stochastic Switching in a Probabilistic Bandit Task Using Stickiness-Based Decision Models

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Adaptive decision-making in uncertain environments requires integrating reward history to guide flexible action selection. Beron et al. (2022) showed that mice performing a probabilistic two-choice bandit task exhibit graded, history-dependent stochastic switching behaviour that is accurately captured by reinforcement learning and recursive logistic regression (RFLR) models incorporating choice-history bias ("stickiness"), whereas inference-based hidden Markov models (HMMs) exhibit excessive switching. Using the authors' publicly available analysis and modelling code, we first validated the principal behavioural signatures and model comparisons reported under the original 80–20 reward condition. Building on this verified framework, we extended the analysis to a noisier 70–30 environment to examine how behavioural parameters adapt under increased reward uncertainty. Cross-validated parameter estimation revealed increased base stickiness and reduced surprise sensitivity under greater stochasticity, indicating environment-sensitive modulation of persistence. We further introduced nonlinear, prediction-error–dependent stickiness mechanisms and evaluated their effects using generative simulations and held-out predictive log-likelihood. Dynamic RFLR achieved the highest predictive performance among adaptive variants and improved reward-per-switch efficiency by reducing excessive switching while preserving reward acquisition. These findings suggest that stickiness functions not merely as a static bias, but as a volatility-sensitive control parameter that regulates the flexibility–stability trade-off under uncertainty.

INTRODUCTION

Adaptive decision-making in uncertain environments requires balancing behavioural flexibility with persistence. In probabilistic reversal learning tasks, agents must integrate reward history to infer changes in environmental contingencies while avoiding overreaction to stochastic outcomes. A central feature of such behaviour is stochastic switching, in which agents occasionally switch actions despite recent reward, reflecting uncertainty about the underlying state. In rodents and humans, probabilistic reversal learning engages cortico-striatal circuits implicated in reinforcement learning and behavioural flexibility, including orbitofrontal cortex, medial prefrontal cortex, and dorsal striatum [2, 3]. Dopaminergic signalling is thought to encode reward prediction errors that guide value updating, while prefrontal regions contribute to monitoring volatility and regulating behavioural persistence. Disruptions to these systems alter switching behaviour, producing either excessive perseveration or oversensitivity to negative feedback. Thus, understanding how agents regulate persistence under stochastic reward conditions has both computational and biological significance. Beron et al. (2022) [1] addressed this problem in mice performing a dynamic two-choice probabilistic bandit task. They showed that mouse behaviour deviates from that of an ideal Bayesian observer performing hidden Markov model (HMM) inference, particularly in its switching dynamics. Instead, behaviour was accurately captured by a recursive logistic regression (RFLR) model incorporating a choice-history bias ("stickiness") and a stochastic action policy. Importantly, these models achieved near-maximal reward rates despite deviating from theoretically optimal inference, suggesting that behavioural persistence functions as a stabilising mechanism under stochastic feedback. Although Beron et al. demonstrated that stickiness is necessary to explain mouse behaviour, the computational role of this parameter remains underspecified. In their formulation, stickiness was treated as a fixed bias that varies across reward contexts but does not dynamically adapt within a session. It therefore remains unclear whether stickiness reflects a static behavioural tendency or a control variable that is regulated online in response to environmental volatility. If stickiness functions to buffer against stochastic reward fluctuations, one would predict that it should scale with environmental uncertainty and potentially respond to recent prediction error signals. Testing this hypothesis requires extending the fixed-stickiness framework to include adaptive modulation mechanisms. In this study, we first establish a behavioural and modelling baseline using the framework introduced by Beron et al. (2022) under the original 80–20 reward condition. We then extend the analysis to a noisier 70–30 environment to examine how behavioural parameters scale with increased uncertainty. Finally, we introduce nonlinear, adaptive stickiness mechanisms and evaluate their effects on switching behaviour and reward efficiency using generative simulations and cross-validated predictive analyses. By integrating a validated baseline with targeted model extensions, we aim to clarify the computational and potentially biological role of stickiness as a dynamically regulated mechanism for behavioural persistence under uncertainty.

METHODS: BASELINE FRAMEWORK FROM BERON ET AL. (2022)

Behavioural signature of interest in the original study

Beron et al. (2022) demonstrated that mice performing a dynamic two-choice probabilistic bandit task exhibit graded, stochastic switching rather than deterministic win–stay/lose–switch behaviour. The key behavioural signature is the conditional switching probability $P(\text{switch} \mid \text{history})$, which increases with accumulating negative evidence but remains bounded below one. Despite stochastic feedback, mice achieve near-maximal reward rates, indicating efficient adaptation under uncertainty.

Baseline implementation and data sources

To establish a validated behavioural and modelling baseline, we used the publicly available dataset and analysis/model code released by Beron et al. (2022). We executed the authors' pipeline to regenerate the key behavioural summaries and model-comparison figures reported in the original study. All baseline figures were generated using the provided scripts/notebooks with fixed random seeds where applicable, and outputs were cross-checked against the published results for qualitative agreement (e.g., graded policy structure, model ranking, and HMM overswitching).

Computational models considered in Beron et al. (2022)

Beron et al. (2022) compared multiple model classes that differ in how reward history and environmental uncertainty are represented. We summarise these model families here to define the computational hypotheses evaluated in both the reproduction and extension analyses.

Win–Stay/Lose–Switch (WSLS). A heuristic strategy that repeats rewarded actions and switches after unrewarded outcomes. WSLS predicts near-deterministic switching after losses and therefore fails to capture graded behavioural responses.

Reinforcement learning (RL). A model-free approach that incrementally updates action values via reward prediction errors, typically paired with stochastic action selection. RL captures gradual adaptation but does not explicitly represent latent states of the environment.

Inference-based models (HMM). A latent-state model that infers the current reward contingency from past outcomes using Bayesian belief updating. Inference models can adapt rapidly following reversals but may over-switch under stochastic feedback if stochastic reward omissions are over-interpreted as evidence for latent state change. Beliefs are updated according to:

$$P(s_t \mid o_{1:t}) \propto P(o_t \mid s_t) \sum_{s_{t-1}} P(s_t \mid s_{t-1}) P(s_{t-1} \mid o_{1:t-1}),$$

where $P(s_t \mid o_{1:t})$ is the posterior belief over latent reward states given observations $o_{1:t}$. For Sticky HMM variants, PE_t was defined as the difference between the observed reward and the belief-weighted expected reward under the model's current posterior belief and emission probabilities. Here, observations o_t correspond to trial outcomes (reward) conditioned on the chosen action at time t.

Recursive logistic regression (RFLR). A reduced model that predicts choices from accumulated choice–outcome history while incorporating a choice-history bias (stickiness). In the recursive formulation, the probability of choosing action a_t is:

$$P(a_t = 1) = \frac{1}{1 + \exp\left[-(\beta x_t + \alpha a_{t-1})\right]},$$

where x_t represents accumulated reward evidence, β is an inverse temperature controlling sensitivity to evidence, and α is the stickiness parameter biasing repetition of the previous choice. Additional analysis scripts were used to regenerate behavioural summary metrics reported in the original study, including conditional switching probabilities, event-triggered switching dynamics, and quantitative comparisons between model and mouse policies. These analyses confirmed qualitatively with the key behavioural signatures described by Beron et al. (2022) and established the modelling framework used for subsequent extensions.

METHODS: EXTENSIONS

Behaviour under increased uncertainty (70–30 condition)

Generative model simulations. Using cross-validated parameter estimates, we generated synthetic behaviour in both reward environments (80-20 and 70-30) under three model classes: RFLR, Ideal HMM (Thompson sampling), and Sticky HMM. To ensure identical reversal structure across models, simulations were run on the empirical latent state sequences extracted from the experimental sessions. Reward delivery probabilities were set to 0.8/0.2 (80–20) or 0.7/0.3 (70–30). Transition probabilities were set to the task transition parameter used in the generative simulations (p_{switch}), consistent

with the probabilistic bandit structure. For each environment, RFLR parameters (α, β, τ) estimated via cross-validation were used to simulate behaviour. To assess parameter generalisation across environments, we additionally simulated the 70-30 condition using parameters fitted in the 80-20 environment.

Cross-validated parameter estimation across reward environments. To quantify how behavioural parameters depend on environmental uncertainty, the RFLR model was fit separately in the 80–20 and 70–30 reward environments. Parameter estimation was performed using 5-fold cross-validation at the session level to ensure robust generalisation and prevent information leakage between training and evaluation data. Sessions were randomly partitioned into five folds using a fixed random seed. For each fold, model parameters (α, β, τ) were fit on four training folds by maximising the log-likelihood of the observed choice sequence under the RFLR model. Optimisation was implemented using stochastic gradient descent (10,000 iterations; learning rate = 0.01). The fitted parameters were then evaluated on the held-out fold to assess out-of-sample predictive performance. This procedure was repeated for all folds, and the final parameter estimate for each environment was taken as the mean of parameter estimates across folds.

Behavioural metrics and model comparison. Model behaviour was evaluated using summary statistics computed at the session level. For each simulated session, we computed the total reward obtained per session and the total number of switches per session. These metrics were used to characterise the reward-cognitive trade-off across models. To quantify switching dynamics around environmental reversals, we computed the probability of switching as a function of trial distance relative to block transitions. Switch probabilities were aligned to empirical state transitions and averaged across sessions to characterise cognitive lag and adaptation dynamics. Finally, parameter estimates (α, β, τ) were compared across the 80-20 and 70-30 environments to assess systematic shifts associated with increased reward uncertainty.

Nonlinear stickiness mechanisms

To extend the fixed-stickiness framework, we implemented dynamic modulation of the stickiness parameter (α) based on recent environmental feedback. These mechanisms were applied to the RFLR, HMM, and forgetting Q-learning (F-Q) architectures and evaluated using generative simulations.

Rolling window statistic Let W_t denote the set of indices corresponding to the most recent N trials up to time t (or fewer if $t < N$). We define the rolling statistic as

$$\bar{E}_t = \frac{1}{|W_t|} \sum_{k \in W_t} \mathrm{PE}_k. \tag{1}$$

This statistic was updated sequentially on each trial using a fixed-length rolling buffer.

Informational gating: signed prediction-error modulation (RFLR and HMM). For the RFLR and HMM models, stickiness was dynamically scaled as a function of recent signed prediction error (PE). On each trial $t > 0$, effective stickiness was computed via exponential gating:

$$\alpha_t = \alpha_{\text{base}} \exp\big(\gamma\, \bar{E}_t\big)\,. \tag{2}$$

where α_{base} is baseline stickiness, γ is surprise sensitivity, and $\bar{E}_t$ is the mean PE over an N-trial rolling window (defined above).

Prediction-error signals. Prediction-error signals were defined to match the implementation for each model class. For dynamic RFLR, we used an internal expected-reward proxy $\hat{r}_t = \sigma(\phi\, c_t)$ derived from the model's choice-weighted term c_t, and defined

$$\mathrm{PE}_t \;=\; r_t - \hat{r}_t, \qquad \mathrm{PE}_0 \;=\; r_0 - 0.5. \tag{3}$$

For Sticky HMM variants, PE_t was defined as the difference between the observed reward and the belief-weighted expected reward under the model's current posterior belief and emission probabilities. In the nonlinear Sticky HMM implementation, emission probabilities were parameterised asymmetrically with respect to chosen action, such that the reward likelihood under each latent state depended explicitly on the action taken at trial t. The belief-weighted expected reward was therefore computed using this action-conditioned emission structure, consistent with the computational implementation. For the F-Q nonlinear stickiness variant, the gating signal used the absolute value error

$$\varepsilon_t \;=\; \big|\, r_t - Q_t(a_t) \,\big|, \tag{4}$$

and the rolling window statistic was defined as

$$\bar{E}_t = \frac{1}{|W_t|} \sum_{k \in W_t} \varepsilon_k, \tag{5}$$

where W_t denotes the set of indices corresponding to the most recent N trials (or fewer if $t < N$). This rolling mean was updated sequentially at each trial and used to modulate stickiness via exponential gating.

Multi-level gating framework and optimal evaluation

Model hypotheses. Phase 4 evaluates distinct computational hypotheses for how agents use environmental

"surprise" to regulate choice persistence in the 2ABT. We compare (i) a direct policy model where surprise gates motor persistence trial-by-trial (dynamic RFLR), (ii) a belief-based model where Bayesian state inference is combined with motor-level stickiness (Sticky HMM), and (iii) a temporal/value baseline where switching behaviour emerges from windowed value dynamics (FQ value-gated). In addition, belief-reset variants test whether omission-driven surprise triggers change-point detection and belief reinitialisation.

Cross-validated optimisation. To prevent overfitting, parameters were fit using 5-fold cross-validation over sessions. For each fold, model parameters were optimised on the training set and evaluated on held-out sessions using mean log-likelihood (Mean LL) as the primary performance metric. For the value-gated F-Q baseline, temporal window size N and baseline stickiness were optimised, while surprise sensitivity was fixed at $\gamma = 0$ because this variant implements temporal gating only.

Nested search over temporal parameters. Discrete temporal parameters (e.g., commitment window N) were selected via a nested search procedure. The outer loop enumerated candidate N values, and the inner loop performed continuous optimisation of model parameters (e.g., α_{base} and surprise sensitivity γ) using L-BFGS-B with bounds. Parameter stability was assessed via across-fold variability, and the optimal N was selected via plurality vote across folds.

Model design: temporal gating and surprise-dependent modulation. To extend the computational framework beyond fixed stickiness, we implemented nonlinear stickiness mechanisms that dynamically regulate behavioural persistence. These extensions were applied to RFLR, HMM, and forgetting Q-learning (F-Q) models. Temporal gating was implemented at the value level within the F-Q architecture. Q-values were held fixed during each N-trial window and updated only at window boundaries using the mean reward obtained for each action during that window. The agent continued to make a free stochastic choice on every trial based on the current (potentially frozen) Q-values, so temporal gating discretised the learning signal rather than the motor output. Informational gating was implemented via prediction-error–dependent modulation of stickiness. For RFLR and HMM variants, the gating signal used *signed* prediction error PE_t. For the F-Q nonlinear stickiness variant, the gating signal used *absolute* value error $\varepsilon_t = |r_t - Q_t(a_t)|$.

Simulation protocol and recorded outputs. Synthetic behavioural sessions were generated using the same probabilistic bandit task structure described above. Models were simulated across multiple sessions, and we recorded the dynamic stickiness trace, switching frequency, and (where applicable) value estimates (e.g., Q-values for F-Q). These outputs were used to assess how adaptive stickiness regulates the balance between persistence and flexibility under stochastic feedback.

Implementation details. All extension simulations were implemented in Python using custom code written for this project. For nonlinear stickiness experiments, synthetic behavioural data were generated for 5 independent sessions of 120 trials each, with reward contingencies evolving according to a two-state Markov process with transition probability $P(\text{switch}) = 0.1$. Behavioural metrics were averaged across sessions. Dynamic stickiness was modulated according to the mean prediction error over an N-step rolling window, with parameter values matched to those used in the computational implementation. Temporal gating was implemented by discretising Q-value updates into N-trial windows, with Q-values held fixed within each window and updated using the mean reward per action at window boundaries, while informational gating was implemented by updating the stickiness parameter on each trial according to the accumulated prediction error window. In predictive HMM analyses, the transition hazard was estimated separately from the empirical session structure for each reward environment rather than fixed globally. We hypothesised that dynamic stickiness would improve switching efficiency by preventing excessive switching in response to stochastic reward fluctuations and, where evaluated against baseline models, improve alignment with mouse switching dynamics.

Reproduction: Quantitative Agreement Across Models

To quantify model–mouse agreement in the reproduced analyses, we compared model-predicted and empirical conditional switching probabilities across reward histories (Fig. 4). Scatter comparisons relative to the identity line confirm that RFLR provides the closest quantitative alignment with mouse behaviour, whereas HMM variants systematically deviate, particularly in high-loss histories. These results reproduce the key quantitative ranking reported in the original study and establish a validated baseline for subsequent extensions.

RESULTS

Validation of published behavioural signatures

We first verified that the publicly available analysis and modelling pipeline released by Beron et al. (2022) reproduces the key behavioural and model-comparison results reported in the original study. Executing the authors' codebase regenerated the principal figures characterising graded, history-dependent stochastic switching in mice (Fig. 1) and the comparative performance of candidate models (Figs. 2–4). Conditional switching probabilities computed from mouse behaviour exhib-

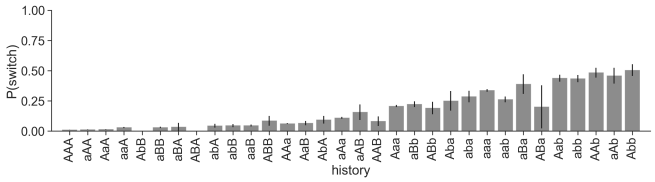


FIG. 1: **Mouse baseline exhibits graded, stochastic switching.** Conditional switching probability $P(\text{switch} \mid \text{history})$ computed nonparametrically from mouse behaviour (history length = 3). Switching probability increases with accumulating negative evidence but remains bounded below one, demonstrating graded, stochastic rather than deterministic win–stay/lose–switch behaviour.

ited graded dependence on recent reward history and remained bounded below one (Fig. 1), confirming the stochastic switching structure described in the original study. Around contingency reversals, RFLR and logistic regression models reproduced gradual adaptation dynamics, whereas inference-based HMM variants exhibited sharper transitions and elevated switching (Fig. 2). Similarly, conditional switching structure and quantitative model–mouse agreement analyses (Figs. 3–4) confirmed that RFLR more closely matches the graded switching policy observed in mice, while HMM variants systematically overestimate switching probability across histories. Although this validation relied on the original implementation rather than an independent reimplementation, it establishes a consistent computational baseline and ensures that subsequent extensions are grounded in a verified modelling framework.

We next examined behaviour around contingency reversals. Mice exhibited gradual adaptation in both choice probability and switching rate. Logistic regression, RFLR, and forgetting Q-learning reproduced this gradual adjustment, whereas the HMM showed sharper transitions and elevated switching (Fig. 2).

Differences were also evident in conditional switching structure (Fig. 3). The RFLR closely matched the graded switching policy observed in mice, whereas the HMM systematically overestimated switching probability across many histories.

Scatter comparisons (Fig. 4) confirmed that RFLR provided the closest quantitative match to mouse switching behaviour, whereas HMM deviated substantially.

Together, these results reproduce the main findings of Beron et al., demonstrating that mouse behaviour is best captured by models incorporating stochastic evidence integration and choice history bias.

Extension: Behaviour under increased uncertainty (70–30)

Having validated the original modelling framework, we next introduced a noisier 70–30 reward environment to examine how behavioural persistence adapts under increased stochasticity. This manipulation was not explored in the original study and therefore constitutes a novel extension of the framework. Cross-validated parameter estimates revealed systematic modulation across environments (Fig. 5). Stickiness increased in the 70–30 condition, consistent with greater behavioural persistence under increased reward stochasticity.

Behavioural efficiency revealed a clear reward–switch trade-off (Fig. 6). Although the HMM achieved slightly higher reward, it did so at the cost of substantially increased switching.

Reversal-aligned switching dynamics further demonstrated environment-specific effects (Fig. 7). Parameters fitted in the 70–30 condition reproduced gradual adaptation, whereas applying 80–20 parameters led to exaggerated switching.

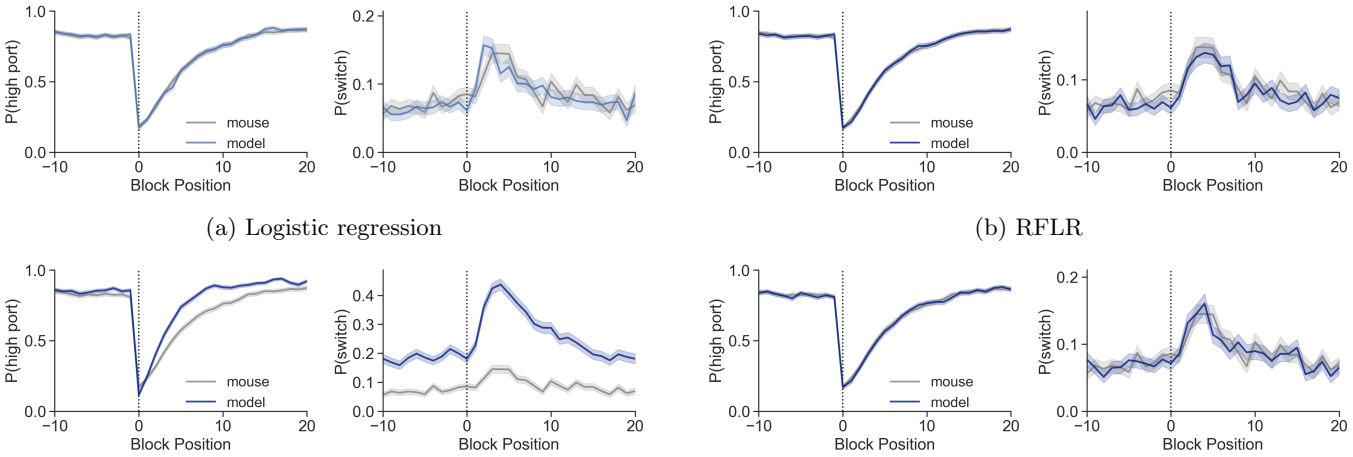
Finally, plotting reward-per-switch against switching frequency (Fig. 8) highlighted differences in behavioural efficiency. The HMM occupied a high-switch, low-efficiency regime, whereas RFLR remained closer to empirical mouse behaviour.

Extension: Adaptive stickiness mechanisms

Building on the validated baseline, we implemented nonlinear, surprise-dependent modulation of stickiness to test whether dynamic regulation of persistence improves behavioural efficiency and predictive performance. We first compared static and dynamic RFLR models (Fig. 9). Dynamic stickiness shifted behaviour toward lower switching rates while preserving reward, particularly under the noisier 70–30 condition. This indicates that adaptive modulation of persistence improves the reward–cost trade-off relative to fixed parameters.

We next compared all adaptive variants jointly (Fig. 10). Across both reward environments, dynamic RFLR and the reset-based Sticky HMM variants occupied lower-switch, higher-efficiency regions than the more reactive adaptive alternatives shown in the same panel. Within the FQ family, value-gated and nonlinear variants showed broadly comparable efficiency, with the value-gated baseline not uniformly dominating across environments.

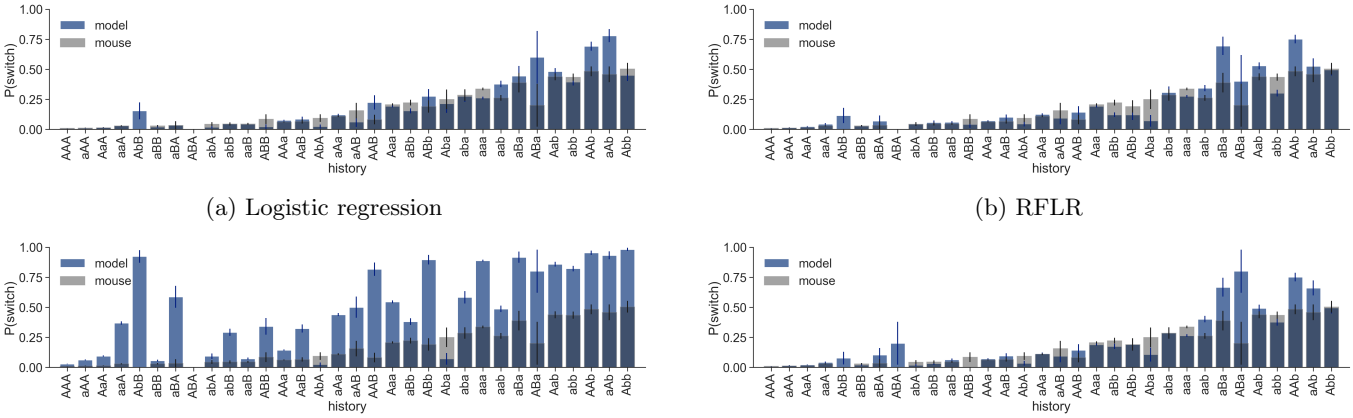
Finally, reversal-aligned generative transition dynamics revealed how adaptive mechanisms stabilise behaviour across environments (Fig. 11). Under the 80–20 condition, all models adapt rapidly following reversals. In contrast, under 70–30 uncertainty, adaptive stickiness pro-



(a) Logistic regression (b) RFLR

(c) HMM (d) Forgetting Q-learning

FIG. 2: **Model comparison around contingency reversals.** Choice probability (left) and switching probability (right) aligned to block transitions. RFLR and logistic regression reproduce the gradual adaptation observed in mice, whereas the HMM exhibits sharper transitions and elevated switching, reflecting oversensitivity to stochastic reward omissions.



(a) Logistic regression (b) RFLR

(c) HMM (d) Forgetting Q-learning

FIG. 3: **Conditional switching structure reveals HMM overswitching.** Mouse (grey) and model (blue) conditional switching probabilities across recent reward histories. RFLR closely matches the graded switching structure of mouse behaviour, while the HMM systematically overestimates switching across multiple histories.

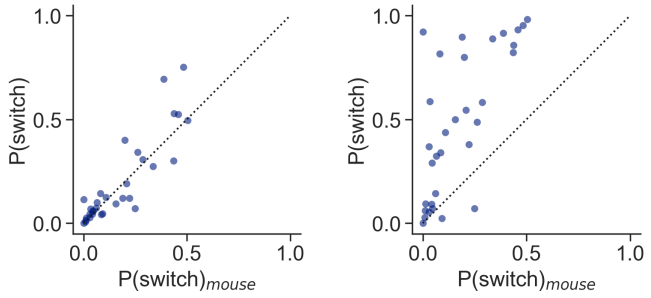
duces more gradual, bounded switching dynamics, preventing oversensitive responses to stochastic losses.

Together, these generative results indicate that adaptive modulation of stickiness can improve behavioural efficiency and produce switching dynamics that more closely resemble empirical mouse behaviour, with the clearest support arising from the dynamic RFLR and Sticky HMM reset variants.

Predictive validation of adaptive stickiness mechanisms

We next evaluated whether adaptive stickiness mechanisms capture the fine-grained structure of mouse switching behaviour beyond reward-based efficiency metrics.

History-dependent switching structure. Figure 12 shows conditional switching probabilities across all 32 three-trial reward histories for the dynamic RFLR model under both reward environments. Under 70–30 uncertainty, dynamic RFLR reproduces the graded structure of mouse switching probabilities, maintaining bounded switching even after streaks of losses. Under 80–20, switching remains sharply modulated by recent reward



(a) RFLR (b) HMM

FIG. 4: **Quantitative model–mouse agreement.** Scatter plots comparing model-predicted and empirical $P(\text{switch} \mid \text{history})$ values. Points closer to the identity line indicate better agreement. RFLR demonstrates stronger quantitative alignment with mouse policy than the HMM.

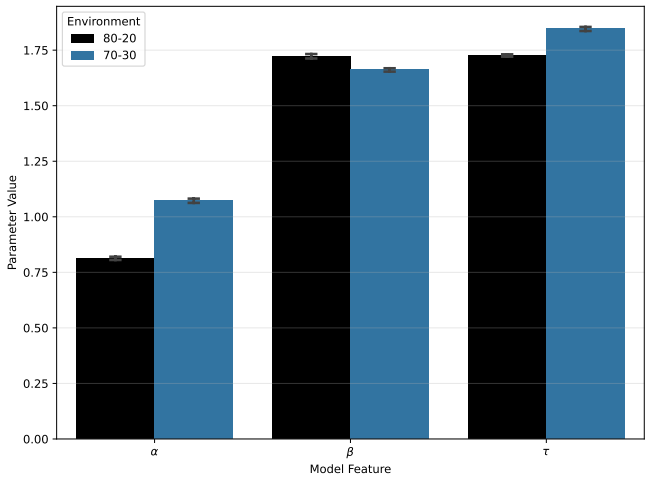


FIG. 5: **Stickiness increases under environmental uncertainty.** Cross-validated RFLR parameter estimates across 80–20 and 70–30 reward environments. Stickiness (α) increases systematically in the noisier 70–30 condition, indicating greater behavioural persistence under increased reward stochasticity.

history, consistent with empirical behaviour.

Sticky HMM with symmetric reset exhibits similar graded structure (Fig. 13), but produces slightly elevated switching following rare loss streaks, particularly under 70–30 uncertainty.

Quantitative policy agreement. We quantified model–mouse agreement by correlating predicted and empirical conditional switching probabilities across histories (Fig. 14). Dynamic RFLR exhibits strong alignment across both reward environments, whereas Sticky HMM shows moderate but improved agreement relative to inference-only variants. These results show that the best-performing adaptive models capture

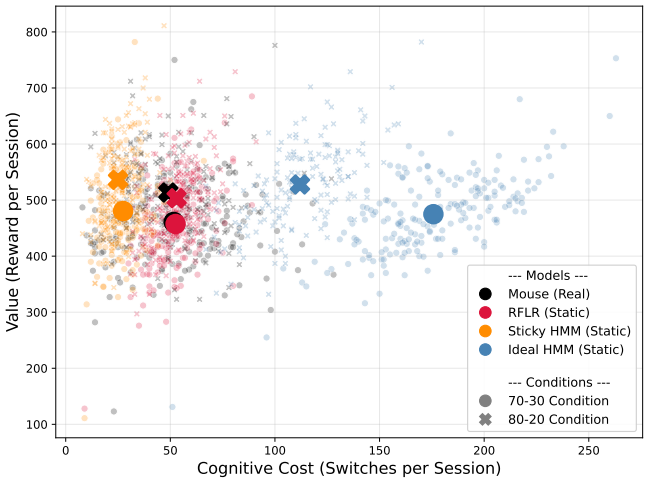


FIG. 6: **Reward–switch trade-off across environments.** Total reward per session plotted against switching frequency. While inference-based HMM achieves slightly higher reward, it does so at the cost of substantially increased switching, resulting in lower reward-per-switch efficiency compared to RFLR and mouse behaviour.

aspects of the detailed shape of mouse switching policy rather than merely reproducing aggregate reward statistics.

Reversal-aligned predictive dynamics. Finally, we evaluated predictive reversal dynamics across environments. As shown in Fig. 15, dynamic RFLR closely tracks mouse adaptation following contingency reversals under both 80–20 and 70–30 conditions, maintaining bounded switching and avoiding oversensitivity to stochastic outcomes. Sticky HMM with symmetric reset similarly stabilises reversal-aligned switching relative to inference-only models, though with slightly steeper transitions.

Collectively, these predictive analyses support the conclusion that adaptive stickiness, especially in the dynamic RFLR formulation, reproduces the structured, graded, and environment-sensitive switching policy observed in mice while maintaining favourable reward–switch efficiency.

Cross-validated predictive comparison of adaptive stickiness models

To complement reward–switch efficiency analyses, we compared adaptive model variants using held-out predictive log-likelihood from 5-fold cross-validation (Table I). Across both reward environments, dynamic RFLR achieved the highest predictive performance (least negative Mean LL; Table I). In the 80–20 condition, dynamic RFLR improved held-out log-likelihood by approx-

TABLE I: **Cross-validated predictive performance and fitted adaptive-stickiness parameters.** Mean held-out log-likelihood (Mean LL), fitted base stickiness α_{base} (mean ± SD across folds), surprise sensitivity γ (mean ± SD), and selected commitment window N for each model and reward environment. Higher Mean LL (less negative) indicates better predictive performance on held-out data.

Condition	Model	Mean LL	α_{base}	SD	γ	SD	N
80–20	RFLR	-0.1804	1.052	0.006	0.680	0.024	1
80–20	HMM_sticky	-0.2318	1.227	0.020	0.460	0.018	1
80–20	HMM_reset	-0.1984	0.606	0.005	0.883	0.014	1
80–20	HMM_resetv2	-0.1832	0.809	0.006	0.661	0.008	1
80–20	FQ	-0.2204	2.076	0.010	0.002	0.002	2
80–20	FQ_Value_Gated	-0.2204	2.077	0.010	0.000	0.000	2
70–30	RFLR	-0.1959	1.352	0.016	0.506	0.014	1
70–30	HMM_sticky	-0.2447	1.392	0.022	0.375	0.015	1
70–30	HMM_reset	-0.2094	0.818	0.008	0.854	0.009	1
70–30	HMM_resetv2	-0.2015	0.997	0.008	0.561	0.009	1
70–30	FQ	-0.2259	1.702	0.015	0.548	0.017	2
70–30	FQ_Value_Gated	-0.2278	2.172	0.007	0.000	0.000	2

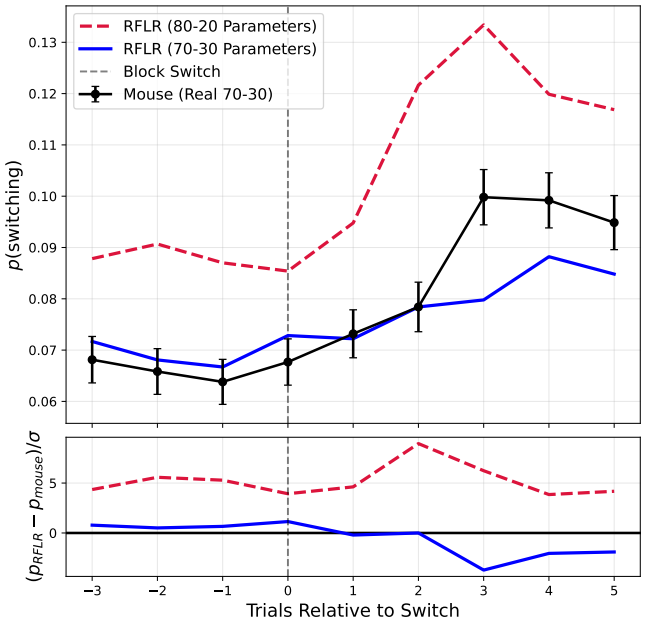


FIG. 7: **Cross-environment parameter transfer induces oversensitive switching.** Reversal-aligned switching dynamics under the 70–30 condition using parameters fit in either 80–20 or 70–30 environments. Applying 80–20 parameters exaggerates switching following reversals, demonstrating environment-specific calibration of stickiness.

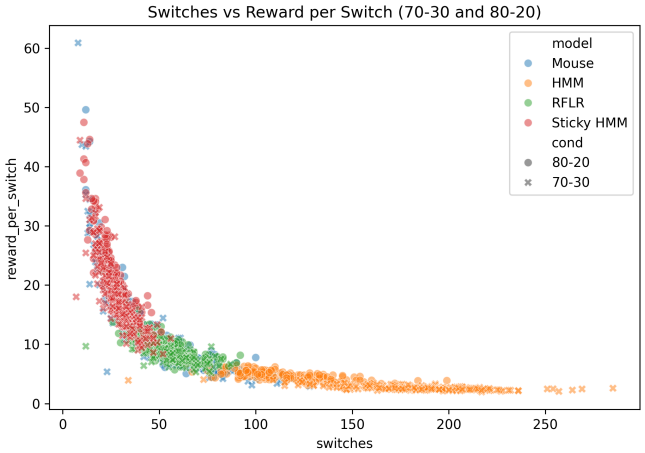


FIG. 8: **Efficiency frontier reveals stabilising role of stickiness.** Reward-per-switch efficiency plotted against switching frequency. Adaptive stickiness mechanisms shift behaviour toward lower-switch, higher-efficiency regimes, reducing unnecessary switching while maintaining reward.

imately 0.0028 per trial relative to the next-best adaptive variant (HMM resetv2), and by 0.0056 per trial in the 70–30 condition. Although modest at the single-trial level, these differences accumulate across sessions and indicate consistently superior out-of-sample predictive performance. Although adaptive variants introduce additional parameters (e.g., γ and commitment window size N), improvements in held-out likelihood indicate that gains reflect improved predictive structure rather than mere parameter flexibility. Parameter estimates also showed systematic context-dependence: in dynamic RFLR, base stickiness increased from $\alpha_{\text{base}} = 1.052 \pm 0.006$ in 80–20 to $\alpha_{\text{base}} = 1.352 \pm 0.016$ in 70–30, consistent with greater behavioural persistence under increased reward stochasticity. In contrast, surprise sensitivity decreased from $\gamma = 0.680 \pm 0.024$ (80–20) to $\gamma = 0.506 \pm 0.014$ (70–30), suggesting reduced trial-by-trial reactivity under higher uncertainty. Across models, the selected commitment window was typically short ($N = 1$), with both FQ variants favouring a slightly longer window ($N = 2$), consistent with discretised value

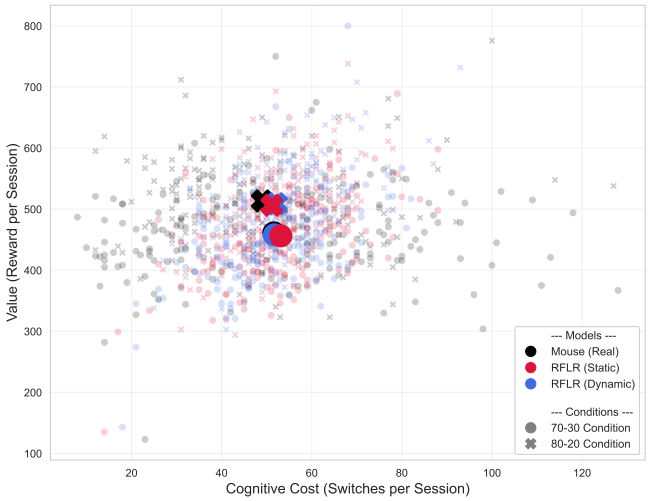


FIG. 9: **Dynamic stickiness improves efficiency relative to static RFLR.** Comparison of static and dynamic RFLR models across reward environments. Dynamic stickiness reduces switching frequency while preserving reward, shifting behaviour toward the empirical mouse regime, particularly under increased uncertainty.

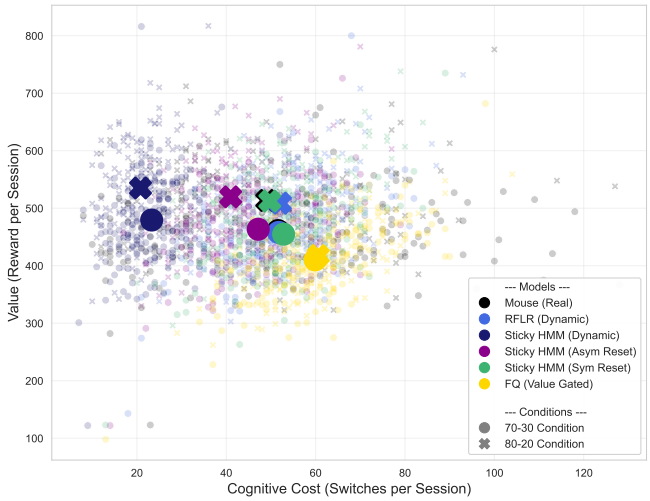


FIG. 10: **Adaptive models shift behaviour toward the mouse regime.** Efficiency frontier comparison across adaptive variants. Dynamic RFLR and Sticky HMM reset models occupy comparatively efficient, lower-switch regions of the reward–switch space, indicating improved stabilisation under stochastic feedback relative to the other adaptive variants shown.

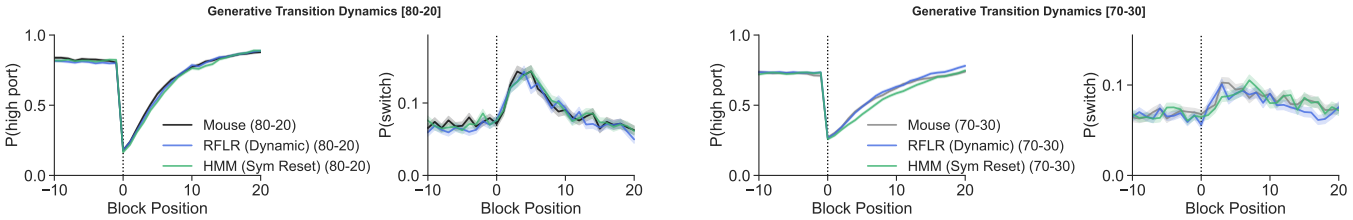
updating. Predictive performance within the FQ family was mixed: the two variants were tied in the 80–20 condition, while the nonlinear FQ model slightly outperformed the value-gated baseline in the 70–30 condition. Together, these results provide likelihood-based support for adaptive stickiness mechanisms and quantify how fitted persistence parameters shift with environmental uncertainty.

Normative interpretation: efficiency versus optimal inference

To contextualise adaptive stickiness mechanisms, we compared their behaviour to an inference-based benchmark (Ideal HMM with Thompson sampling), which approximates normative Bayesian state inference in the probabilistic bandit task. Although the Ideal HMM achieved marginally higher total reward (Fig. 6), it did so at the cost of substantially increased switching frequency, reflecting heightened sensitivity to stochastic reward omissions. In contrast, dynamic RFLR achieved comparable reward while maintaining lower switching rates and improved reward-per-switch efficiency. This pattern suggests that adaptive stickiness does not maximise reward in a strictly normative sense, but instead optimises a trade-off between reward acquisition and switching cost. In environments with stochastic feedback, excessive reactivity can degrade behavioural efficiency even if it remains inference-consistent. From this perspective, stickiness can be interpreted as a bounded-rational control mechanism: rather than implementing full latent-state inference, agents may regulate behavioural persistence to stabilise decisions under uncertainty. In this sense, stickiness may serve as a low-dimensional control signal that approximates belief updating without explicitly representing latent states. Adaptive modulation of stickiness allows persistence to scale with environmental volatility, increasing when feedback becomes unreliable and thereby preventing over-switching. Thus, dynamic stickiness may approximate the efficiency trade-offs associated with inference-based behaviour in a resource-efficient manner, sacrificing minimal reward while substantially reducing switching cost. This interpretation reframes stickiness not as a suboptimal bias, but as an efficiency-oriented computational strategy for balancing flexibility and stability in uncertain environments.

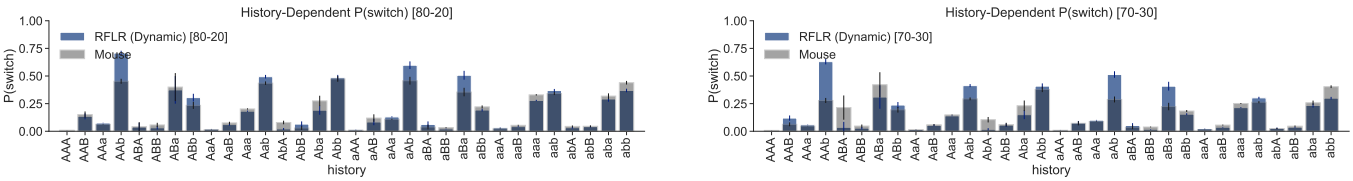
DISCUSSION

The central contribution of this work is not an independent reimplementation of the models introduced by Beron et al. (2022), but a computational validation and systematic extension of their published framework. By executing the publicly available analysis and modelling code provided by the authors, we confirmed that the reported behavioural signatures and model comparisons are reproducible. This validation step provided a reliable baseline upon which to build our extensions.



(a) 80–20 (b) 70–30

FIG. 11: **Adaptive stickiness stabilises reversal-aligned dynamics.** Generative transition dynamics aligned to contingency reversals for both reward environments. Under increased uncertainty (70–30), adaptive stickiness produces more gradual and bounded switching, preventing oversensitive responses to stochastic losses.



(a) 80–20 (b) 70–30

FIG. 12: **Dynamic RFLR reproduces graded history-dependent switching.** Conditional switching probabilities across all 32 three-trial reward histories. Dynamic stickiness preserves bounded, graded switching under both reward environments, closely resembling empirical mouse policy structure.

Validation of stochastic switching structure

Using the released pipeline, we reproduced the graded, history-dependent switching behaviour originally reported in mice. Consistent with Beron et al. (2022), recursive logistic regression (RFLR) captured the bounded, stochastic switching structure more faithfully than inference-based HMM variants, which exhibited elevated switching under stochastic reward omissions. Although this reproduction relied on the original implementation rather than an independent derivation, it confirmed the internal consistency and robustness of the modelling framework.

Stickiness increases with environmental uncertainty

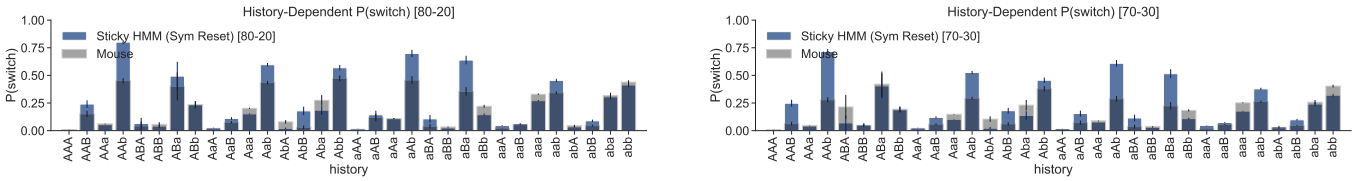
Extending the task to a noisier 70–30 reward environment revealed systematic modulation of fitted parameters. Cross-validated estimates showed that base stickiness increased under greater reward stochasticity, while surprise sensitivity decreased, indicating reduced trial-by-trial reactivity in noisier conditions. Because this manipulation was not explored in the original study, these findings represent a novel extension of the framework. The observed parameter shifts suggest that behavioural persistence adapts to environmental volatility rather than reflecting a fixed bias.

Adaptive stickiness improves efficiency and predictive performance

We further introduced nonlinear, surprise-dependent modulation of stickiness. Generative simulations indicated that adaptive regulation can reduce excessive switching while preserving reward acquisition, particularly under increased uncertainty. Importantly, cross-validated predictive evaluation showed that dynamic RFLR achieved the highest held-out log-likelihood among adaptive variants across both environments. These results provide the strongest support for adaptive stickiness in the dynamic RFLR formulation, while the benefits of alternative adaptive variants were more heterogeneous.

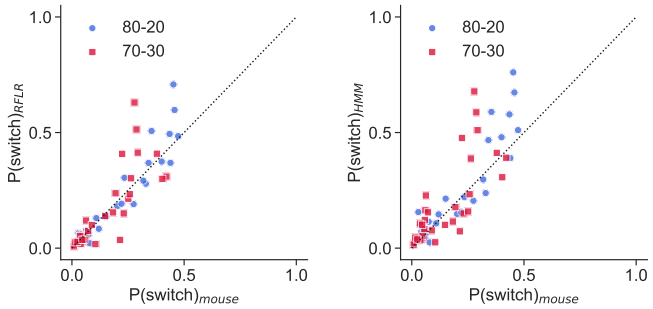
Stickiness as a computational control parameter

Taken together, these findings support an interpretation of stickiness as a volatility-sensitive control parameter regulating the flexibility–stability trade-off. Rather than functioning as a static behavioural bias, stickiness appears to scale with environmental uncertainty, stabilising decisions when feedback becomes unreliable. From this perspective, adaptive stickiness may serve as a computationally efficient surrogate for explicit latent-state inference, particularly in the dynamic RFLR formulation, by approximating belief-based behaviour while reducing sensitivity to stochastic noise.



(a) 80–20 (b) 70–30

FIG. 13: **Sticky HMM with symmetric reset improves graded policy structure.** History-dependent switching probabilities for the symmetric-reset HMM variant. Reset mechanisms reduce excessive switching relative to inference-only HMM, though switching remains slightly elevated following rare loss streaks.



(a) RFLR (Dynamic) (b) Sticky HMM (Sym Reset)

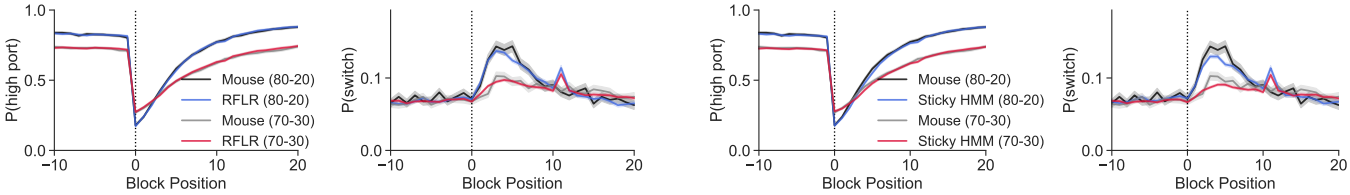
FIG. 14: **Adaptive stickiness improves quantitative policy agreement.** Correlation between model-predicted and empirical conditional switching probabilities. Dynamic RFLR exhibits strong alignment across environments, while Sticky HMM reset variants show moderate but improved agreement relative to inference-only models.

Relation to neural mechanisms of flexibility and persistence

Although the present framework is algorithmic, the adaptive modulation of stickiness suggests possible links to neural mechanisms underlying behavioural flexibility. Probabilistic reversal learning is known to engage cortico-striatal circuits, including orbitofrontal cortex and dorsal striatum, which are implicated in updating action values and regulating behavioural persistence. Dopaminergic signalling has been proposed to encode reward prediction errors, while prefrontal regions contribute to monitoring environmental volatility and controlling switching behaviour. From this perspective, dynamic stickiness may correspond to a gain-control mechanism operating at the level of action selection, modulated by recent prediction error signals. Increased stickiness under higher uncertainty could reflect a neural strategy for dampening reactivity to stochastic negative outcomes, thereby preventing excessive switching. Conversely, reduced stickiness under stable contingencies would permit faster adaptation following true environmental changes. Although speculative, this interpretation situates adaptive stickiness within established neural systems for flexibility and cognitive control, and suggests testable predictions for neurophysiological studies.

Limitations

Several limitations of the present study warrant consideration. First, our reproduction relied on the publicly available implementation provided by Beron et al. (2022) and therefore does not constitute an independent model reimplementation. While this approach ensured faithful replication of the published framework and preserved internal consistency with the original analyses, an independent derivation would further strengthen robustness claims. Second, adaptive variants were evaluated using cross-validated log-likelihood and generative simulations, but model comparison was not embedded within a hierarchical framework across animals. As a result, between-subject variability in stickiness regulation was not formally quantified. A hierarchical Bayesian treatment could provide a more rigorous assessment of individual differences and clarify whether volatility-sensitive modulation generalises consistently across subjects. Third, although reward-per-switch efficiency provides an informative behavioural summary metric, switching costs were not explicitly parameterised within the models. The efficiency trade-offs observed here therefore remain descriptive rather than formally embedded within the objective function. Incorporating explicit energetic or cognitive cost terms would allow a more principled evaluation of bounded-rational strategies. Finally, the present framework operates at the algorithmic level and does not directly specify neural implementation. The mapping between adaptive stickiness and biological control mechanisms therefore remains inferential rather than mechanistic.



(a) Dynamic RFLR

(b) Sticky HMM (Sym Reset)

FIG. 15: **Predictive reversal dynamics confirm stabilising effect of adaptive stickiness.** Model-predicted choice and switching probabilities aligned to reversals across reward environments. Adaptive stickiness maintains bounded switching and avoids oversensitivity under increased uncertainty, closely tracking empirical mouse adaptation.

Future Directions

Future work could extend the present framework in several important directions. Independent reimplementation of the baseline models would provide an additional robustness check and help disentangle modelling assumptions from implementation-specific details. Embedding adaptive stickiness within a hierarchical modelling framework would allow formal comparison of volatility sensitivity across individuals and experimental conditions. More broadly, extending the models to include explicit switching costs or effort-sensitive objective functions could clarify whether adaptive stickiness approximates an optimal trade-off under constrained resources. Integrating these mechanisms within biologically grounded circuit models—particularly cortico-striatal architectures implicated in reversal learning—would further strengthen the link between algorithmic and neural levels of analysis. Finally, experimental manipulation of environmental volatility combined with neural recordings could directly test the prediction that stickiness-related control signals scale with uncertainty. Such work would help determine whether adaptive regulation of behavioural persistence reflects a general computational principle underlying flexible decision-making in stochastic environments.

CONCLUSION

In this project, we validated and extended the computational framework developed by Beron et al. (2022) for modelling stochastic switching in probabilistic bandit tasks. By reproducing the published results using the authors' publicly available codebase, we confirmed the robustness of the reported behavioural signatures and model comparisons. Building on this validated baseline, we introduced a noisier 70–30 reward environment and implemented adaptive stickiness mechanisms that dynamically modulate behavioural persistence. Cross-validated analyses revealed systematic parameter shifts under increased uncertainty and demonstrated that dynamic RFLR achieved the highest held-out predictive performance among adaptive variants. Generative simulations further suggested that adaptive stickiness, most clearly in dynamic RFLR and Sticky HMM reset models, can improve reward-per-switch efficiency by reducing excessive switching while preserving reward acquisition. These findings suggest that stickiness functions not merely as a descriptive bias, but as a volatility-sensitive control parameter that regulates the flexibility–stability trade-off in uncertain environments. By extending the original framework to new environmental conditions and adaptive mechanisms, this work provides additional evidence that dynamic regulation of behavioural persistence can form an efficient computational strategy for stabilising decision-making under stochastic feedback.

AUTHOR CONTRIBUTIONS

G.M., L.O., B.R., and N.Y. contributed equally to conceptualisation, model development, computational implementation, data analysis, figure generation, and manuscript preparation. All authors reviewed and approved the final manuscript.

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* All figures were generated using custom Python code written by the authors, unless stated otherwise, e.g., for reproduction of original results. The full analysis and figure-generation pipeline is available at `https://github.com/BOBRICE1/Stochastic-Switching-Bandits`.

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